LHCb Open Data Analysis

A CERN Open Data Analysis of Three-Body B-Meson Decays

Invariant-Mass Fits, Raw Charge Asymmetry, and Dalitz-Plot Diagnostics

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Abstract

This report presents a compact but realistic high-energy-physics analysis workflow based on LHCb CERN Open Data. Three-body B-meson candidates are reconstructed from charged-hadron tracks under a kaon mass hypothesis, selected with transparent quality and particle-identification requirements, and their invariant-mass spectrum is fitted by extended binned maximum likelihood. Fitting the B^+ and B^- spectra simultaneously with shared shapes, on both magnet polarities, and averaging the polarities gives a raw charge asymmetry of $-0.0321 \pm 0.0213\,(\text{stat.}) \pm 0.0163\,(\text{syst.})$, where the systematic uncertainty is the joint envelope of mass-fit model and fitted-range variations under pre-registered acceptance criteria, and where the statistical procedure is validated on 2000 pseudo-experiments. A low-mass excess in one charge spectrum of one polarity is shown, with the independent polarity, to be a fluctuation, and the simultaneous fit removes the sensitivity to it that separate fits had. The workflow is completed by a sideband-labelled classifier study, Dalitz-plot distributions, and a bin-by-bin local asymmetry diagnostic across the three-body phase space. The asymmetry is raw: no detector, production, trigger or efficiency corrections are applied, and it is presented as a diagnostic of the analysis chain rather than as a measurement of CP violation. The report emphasizes reproducibility, modular scientific code, and explicit statements of what each result does and does not establish.

October 26, 2026

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1 Introduction

The Standard Model of particle physics describes the known elementary particles and their interactions with remarkable precision. Nevertheless, several observed features of the Universe remain only partially understood. One of the most important is the matter–antimatter asymmetry: cosmological observations indicate that the visible Universe is dominated by matter, while the known laws of particle physics contain only limited sources of charge-parity (CP) violation. In the Standard Model, CP violation arises from a single complex phase in the quark-mixing matrix [1, 2], and the size of the resulting effects is far too small to account for the observed baryon asymmetry. Precision studies of flavour-changing processes are therefore a central part of modern particle physics.

Flavour physics studies transitions between different quark flavours. In the heavy-flavour sector, hadrons containing beauty quarks provide especially rich laboratories. The large mass of the beauty quark allows many decay modes, including multibody final states in which resonant and non-resonant amplitudes can interfere. Such interference can generate local CP-asymmetric effects in restricted regions of phase space, even when the integrated asymmetry is small.

B mesons are bound states containing a beauty quark or antiquark and a lighter valence quark. Charged B mesons, denoted B^+ and B^-, form a natural pair of charge-conjugate systems. By comparing the observed yields or distributions of B^+ and B^- candidates, one can construct raw asymmetry observables. In a simplified counting analysis, the integrated asymmetry is written as

$$A_{\mathrm{CP}}^{\mathrm{raw}} = \frac{N(B^-) - N(B^+)}{N(B^-) + N(B^+)}, \tag{1}$$

where $N(B^+)$ and $N(B^-)$ are observed candidate counts. A full physics measurement must correct this raw quantity for background contributions, detector-induced charge asymmetries, production asymmetries, trigger effects, and selection efficiencies. The present project treats Eq. 1 as an analysis diagnostic rather than as a final CP-violation measurement.

This report documents a reproducible analysis workflow built with CERN Open Data [3]. The project focuses on a sample of reconstructed LHCb three-hadron B candidates stored in ROOT files. The analysis reconstructs the B-candidate invariant mass, applies simple physics-motivated selections, fits the mass peak, trains a signal/background classifier using sideband labels, separates charge-conjugate candidates, and produces Dalitz-plot distributions. The goal is to demonstrate a modern high-energy-physics (HEP) workflow using transparent scientific reasoning and modular Python code.

The analysis is intentionally compact. It is not presented as a publishable LHCb measurement, but as a polished student-level project that mirrors the structure of a real experimental analysis: data access, reconstruction, selection, modelling, validation plots, and interpretation of limitations. This makes it suitable as a technical portfolio project for applications in experimental particle physics.

2 The LHCb Experiment

The Large Hadron Collider beauty experiment (LHCb) is a forward spectrometer at the CERN Large Hadron Collider designed for precision studies of hadrons containing beauty and charm quarks [4]. Proton–proton collisions at the LHC produce heavy quarks predominantly in the forward and backward regions. LHCb exploits this production topology by covering a forward angular region, providing excellent tracking, vertexing, momentum resolution, and particle identification.

The detector design is particularly well suited to heavy-flavour analyses. B hadrons have lifetimes long enough to travel measurable distances before decaying. This displaced-decay topology is identified by reconstructing primary vertices from the proton–proton interaction and secondary vertices from the B-hadron decay products. The distance between these vertices and the quality

of the reconstructed secondary vertex are powerful handles for suppressing prompt combinatorial background.

Charged-particle tracking is performed with a system of silicon and tracking stations around a dipole magnet. The curvature of charged-particle trajectories in the magnetic field provides a momentum measurement and determines the charge sign. In the present analysis, the track momentum components are used directly to build four-vectors for the three daughter hadrons. The charge information is used later to classify candidates as B^+ or B^-.

Particle identification (PID) is another central ingredient. LHCb uses ring-imaging Cherenkov detectors to distinguish kaons, pions, and protons over a broad momentum range. The open-data ntuples used in this project contain per-track PID-related variables such as kaon and pion probability-like observables. A simple kaon-PID selection is applied to build a clean demonstration sample under a $B \to KKK$ mass hypothesis.

In a complete LHCb analysis, detector effects are modelled with simulation, calibration samples, and data-driven corrections. This project keeps the detector treatment deliberately simple, but it preserves the main conceptual ingredients: displaced B vertices, charged-track reconstruction, particle identification, and magnet-polarity awareness.

3 Dataset and Software Framework

3.1 ROOT input files

The project uses the CERN Open Data record *Matter Antimatter Differences (B meson decays to three hadrons)* [5], released by the LHCb collaboration in 2017 under a CC0 licence. The record contains three ROOT files with reconstructed B-candidate ntuples. The two data files,

`data/raw/B2HHH_MagnetDown.root`, `data/raw/B2HHH_MagnetUp.root`,

hold the same data-taking period recorded with the two polarities of the LHCb dipole magnet; the third, `PhaseSpaceSimulation.root`, is kept for the extensions discussed in Sec. 9. Both polarities are used for the raw asymmetry. Reversing the magnetic field swaps the side of the detector towards which each charge is bent, so averaging the two polarities cancels left–right detection asymmetries to first order (Sec. 7); MagnetUp also provides an independent sample on which a feature seen in MagnetDown can be checked. The selection, the classifier study and the exploratory notebooks were developed on MagnetDown.

The data are stored in the ROOT format [6], a standard file and object format in high-energy physics. The relevant event information is contained in a tree named `DecayTree`. A ROOT `TTree` stores columnar data: each branch corresponds to one observable, such as a momentum component, charge, PID response, vertex quality, or flight distance. This format is efficient for large event samples because only the branches needed for a given analysis step need to be read.

3.2 Python analysis workflow

The analysis is implemented as a Python workflow. Reusable functions live under `src/`; exploratory notebooks under `notebooks/`; the fit entry points under `scripts/`; and the toy-MC, systematic, charge-shape and Dalitz studies under `studies/`. Every study writes its numerical output as JSON and CSV under `results/`, so each number quoted in this report can be traced to the file that produced it. The main software components are listed in Table 1; they are drawn from the scientific Python stack [7, 8] and from the Scikit-HEP ecosystem [9].

Table 1: Main software tools used in the analysis workflow.

Tool	Role in the analysis
ROOT	Standard HEP file format and ntuple storage
`uproot`	Reading ROOT TTrees directly in Python
`pandas`	Tabular event manipulation and selections
`numpy`	Vectorised numerical calculations
`scipy`	Special functions used in the mass models
`iminuit`	MINUIT interface for the likelihood minimisation
`matplotlib`	Publication-style figures
`scikit-learn`	Random Forest classifier and performance metrics

The branch set used throughout the analysis includes the momentum components `H1_PX`, `H1_PY`, `H1_PZ` through `H3_PZ`, the three track charges, PID variables such as `H1_ProbK`, and B-candidate quality variables such as `B_VertexChi2` and `B_FlightDistance`. A shared selection helper loads these branches, reconstructs the B-candidate mass, and applies the common baseline cuts. This avoids duplicated logic between the mass, machine-learning, CP-asymmetry, and Dalitz notebooks.

The workflow is intentionally modular. The main reusable components are the invariant-mass reconstruction module `src/reconstruction/invariant_mass.py`, the mass models and likelihood fit in `src/fitting/`, the shared selection in `src/physics/selection.py`, the Dalitz-kinematics module `src/physics/dalitz.py`, the plotting helpers in `src/plotting/mass_plots.py`, and the classifier utilities in `src/ml/signal_background.py`. This separation mirrors the structure of a maintainable HEP analysis, where physics definitions, fit models, plotting conventions and machine-learning utilities are reusable across studies rather than duplicated in each of them.

4 Invariant Mass Reconstruction

4.1 Relativistic mass formula

The key reconstructed observable is the invariant mass of the three-hadron B candidate. For a system of particles with total energy E and total momentum $\vec{p}$, the invariant mass is defined by

$$m^2c^4 = E^2 - |\vec{p}|^2c^2. \tag{2}$$

In high-energy-physics units with $c = 1$, this becomes

$$m^2 = E^2 - p_x^2 - p_y^2 - p_z^2. \tag{3}$$

For each daughter track, the analysis uses a charged-kaon mass hypothesis,

$$m_K = 493.677\,\mathrm{MeV}/c^2, \tag{4}$$

and reconstructs the energy as

$$E_i = \sqrt{p_{x,i}^2 + p_{y,i}^2 + p_{z,i}^2 + m_K^2}. \tag{5}$$

The B-candidate four-vector is then the sum of the three daughter four-vectors:

$$E_B = \sum_{i=1}^{3} E_i, \qquad \vec{p}_B = \sum_{i=1}^{3} \vec{p}_i. \tag{6}$$

Substituting these quantities into Eq. 3 gives the reconstructed B-candidate mass. The calculation is performed event-by-event with vectorised `numpy` operations.

4.2 Mass spectrum before and after selection

Figure 1 shows the reconstructed three-kaon mass spectrum before the baseline event selection. The distribution contains a broad combinatorial component as well as a visible accumulation near the expected B-meson mass region. This broad structure is typical of a preselection-level hadron-collider sample, where many random track combinations can satisfy a loose candidate definition.

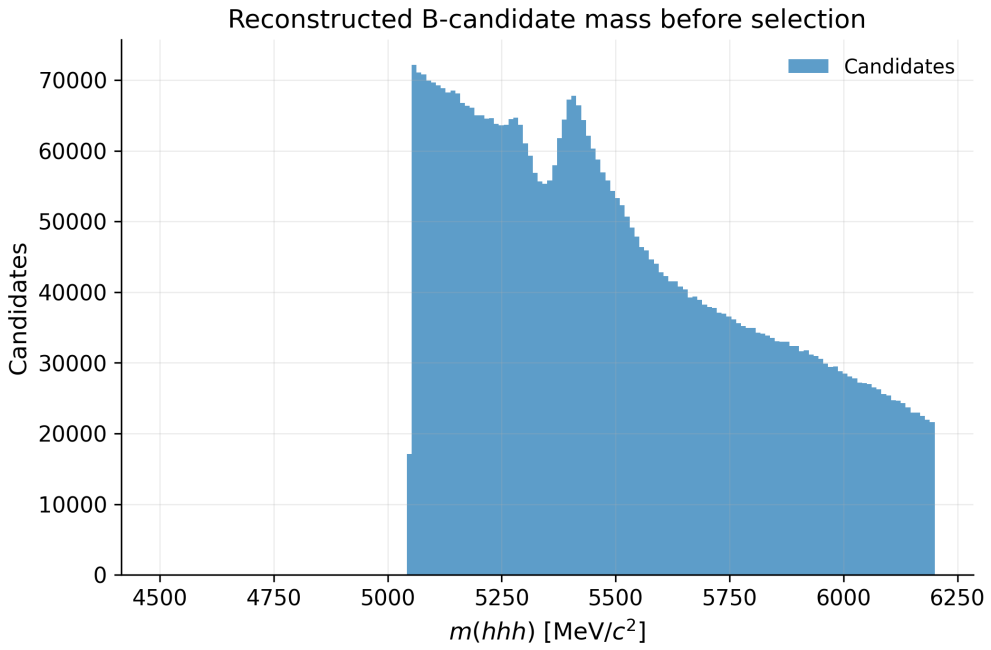


Figure 1: Reconstructed B-candidate invariant-mass distribution before baseline selection.

After applying quality, displacement, and kaon-PID selections, the mass spectrum becomes visibly cleaner, as shown in Fig. 2. The selection enhances the relative contribution of candidates compatible with a displaced B decay and suppresses a large fraction of combinatorial background.

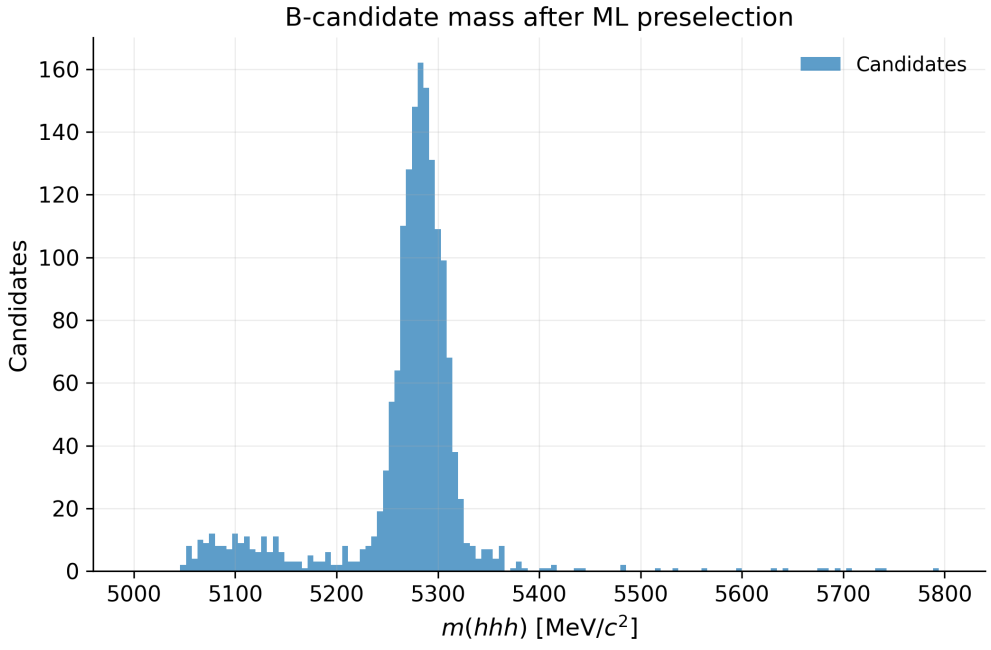


Figure 2: Reconstructed B-candidate invariant-mass distribution after baseline physics selections.

4.3 Signal-plus-background fit

A nominal signal extraction is performed with an extended binned maximum-likelihood fit of the model

$$f(m) = N_s S(m) + N_b B(m), \tag{7}$$

where $S(m)$ is the signal mass shape, $B(m)$ a finite-range exponential describing the combinatorial background, and N_s and N_b the fitted yields inside the fitted interval. The likelihood is minimised with MINUIT [10] through the `iminuit` interface.

Two choices define the nominal configuration, and both are worth stating explicitly because they are where this analysis is most fragile.

Fitted interval. The fit is performed over $5200 < m(hhh) < 5600$ MeV/c^2. The ntuple itself starts at 5050 MeV/c^2, and the spectrum between 5050 and about 5180 MeV/c^2 holds a structure that the combinatorial background model does not describe. It is the same for the two charges, and it falls off at the kinematic limit $m_B - m_\pi \approx 5140$ MeV/c^2 of a B decay in which a pion is not reconstructed, smeared by the resolution: the signature of partially reconstructed decays. An ARGUS shape with that endpoint, convolved with the resolution, was tried over the full 5050–5600 MeV/c^2 range, but the ntuple boundary leaves only the top of the shape visible and its curvature runs to the limit of its allowed range. Starting the fit at 5200 MeV/c^2 removes the region at the cost of a shorter low-mass sideband.

Signal shape. The nominal signal shape is a single Gaussian. A common-mean double Gaussian was tested as the nominal shape, since detector-level mass peaks often show a narrow core with broader tails, but on this sample its wide component, $\sigma = 55 \pm 10$ MeV/c^2, takes over the combinatorial background: the fitted background yield falls from 180 ± 21 to 63 ± 39 candidates, and the uncertainty on the signal yield inflates from 52 to 63. The fit does reach a valid minimum, with a narrow-core fraction of 0.91 ± 0.03, once several starting points are tried, but with a truncated low-mass sideband the data cannot tell a broad resolution tail from the background. The double Gaussian is therefore used as a systematic variation rather than as the nominal shape.

The nominal fit of all selected candidates, both charges and both polarities together, is shown in Fig. 3. Of the 2939 selected candidates (1645 MagnetDown, 1294 MagnetUp), 2573 fall inside the fitted interval. The results are

$$N_s = 2394 \pm 52, \tag{8}$$

$$N_b = 180 \pm 21, \tag{9}$$

$$\mu = 5284.7 \pm 0.4 \text{ MeV}/c^2, \tag{10}$$

$$\sigma = 19.5 \pm 0.4 \text{ MeV}/c^2, \tag{11}$$

with $\chi^2/\text{ndof} = 0.74$. Fitted separately, the two polarities give the same peak position and resolution within 0.1 MeV/c^2. The fitted peak position lies within a few MeV/c^2 of the known $B^\pm$ mass [11], which is the main closure check on the four-vector reconstruction and the mass hypothesis. The fitted resolution is a detector resolution convolved with the kaon mass hypothesis, not a measurement of the natural width.

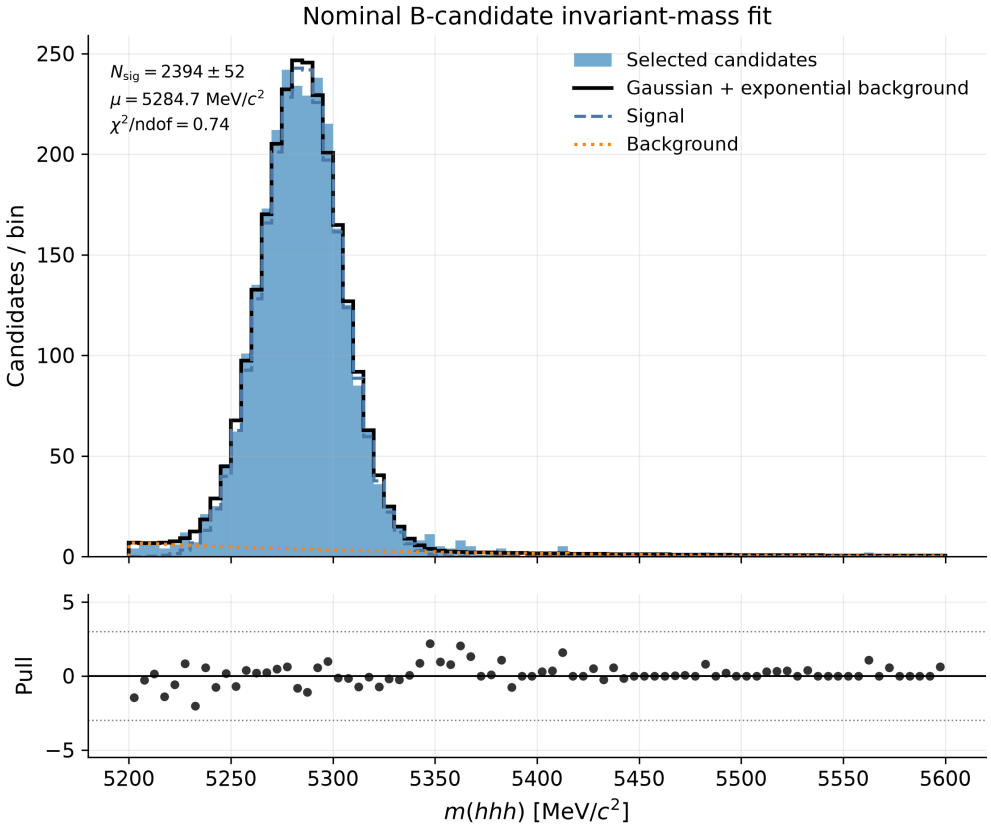


Figure 3: Selected B-candidate mass spectrum fitted with a single-Gaussian signal component and a finite-range exponential background, with fit residuals below.

5 Event Selection

Event selection is a central part of any hadron-collider analysis. The raw candidate sample contains true signal decays, partially reconstructed backgrounds, misidentified backgrounds, and random combinations of charged tracks. The goal of the baseline selection is to retain a useful signal-rich region while keeping the cuts simple enough to interpret.

The open-data ntuple is already preselected: it contains only candidates with $\chi^2_{\text{vertex}}(B) < 12$ and $d_{\text{flight}}(B) > 3$ mm. The baseline selection applied on top of that is

$$\chi^2_{\text{vertex}}(B) < 5, \tag{12}$$

$$d_{\text{flight}}(B) > 20 \text{ mm}, \tag{13}$$

$$P_K(H_1), P_K(H_2), P_K(H_3) > 0.5. \tag{14}$$

Here $\chi^2_{\text{vertex}}(B)$ is the χ^2 of the three-track vertex fit, not divided by its number of degrees of freedom; $d_{\text{flight}}(B)$ is the reconstructed distance in millimetres between the primary and secondary vertices; and $P_K(H_i)$ is the kaon PID response for daughter track H_i, a probability-like variable between 0 and 1.

The selection is severe: it keeps 1645 of the 5 135 823 MagnetDown candidates and 1294 of the 3 420 295 MagnetUp ones, a retention of 3–4 $\times 10^{-4}$. That is a deliberate trade of efficiency for purity, and it has a consequence used later in this report: after these cuts there is little residual background left for a classifier to separate.

The vertex-quality cut suppresses candidates whose three tracks do not form a well-reconstructed secondary vertex. This is physically motivated because the daughters of a true B decay should originate from a common decay point. A poor vertex fit is more likely to arise from accidental combinations of tracks produced in different processes or from poorly reconstructed tracks.

The flight-distance selection exploits the finite lifetime of B mesons. Because B hadrons travel a measurable distance before decaying, their decay vertices are displaced from the primary proton–proton interaction point. Requiring a sufficiently large flight distance therefore suppresses prompt background combinations that originate near the primary vertex.

The PID selection implements the kaon mass hypothesis used in the invariant-mass reconstruction. Requiring all three tracks to have kaon-compatible PID values improves the consistency of the reconstructed final state. In a more complete analysis, one would optimize PID requirements with calibration samples and evaluate the corresponding efficiency and misidentification rates. Here the selection is chosen as a transparent demonstration of how detector-level PID information enters the analysis.

The selected sample is used consistently across the mass reconstruction, signal/background classification, CP-asymmetry diagnostic, and Dalitz-plot studies. This consistency is important: changing the selection between notebooks would make comparisons ambiguous and could introduce artificial differences in the resulting distributions.

6 Signal and Background Classification

6.1 Sideband-labelled samples

The signal/background study uses mass windows to create approximate labels. Candidates in a narrow window around the B mass are labelled as signal-like, while candidates in lower and upper mass sidebands are labelled as background-like. The sideband method is common in HEP because sideband regions provide a data-driven representation of combinatorial background.

The label definition used in the notebook is

$$\text{signal}: \quad 5270 < m_B < 5290 \text{ MeV}/c^2, \tag{15}$$

$$\text{background}: \quad 5200 < m_B < 5250 \text{ MeV}/c^2 \quad \text{or} \quad 5310 < m_B < 5350 \text{ MeV}/c^2. \tag{16}$$

These labels are proxy labels. The signal window can still contain background, and the sidebands may not perfectly represent the background under the signal peak. Nevertheless, the construction is useful for demonstrating a realistic machine-learning workflow without relying on simulation truth information.

6.2 Random Forest classifier

A Random Forest classifier [12] is trained using reconstruction-quality and PID variables. The B-candidate mass is deliberately excluded from the feature list, because the mass defines the labels. Including it would make the classifier learn the sideband construction rather than physically meaningful differences in candidate quality or PID response.

The classifier uses the following feature set:

$$\left\{\chi^2_{\text{vertex}}(B),\, d_{\text{flight}}(B),\, P_K(H_1), P_K(H_2), P_K(H_3),\, P_\pi(H_1), P_\pi(H_2), P_\pi(H_3)\right\}. \tag{17}$$

The label construction yields 528 signal-like and 227 background-like candidates, and the model is evaluated on a held-out third of that sample (227 candidates). The receiver operating characteristic (ROC) curve in Fig. 4 shows the trade-off between signal efficiency and background misclassification rate. The diagonal line corresponds to a classifier with no discriminating power.

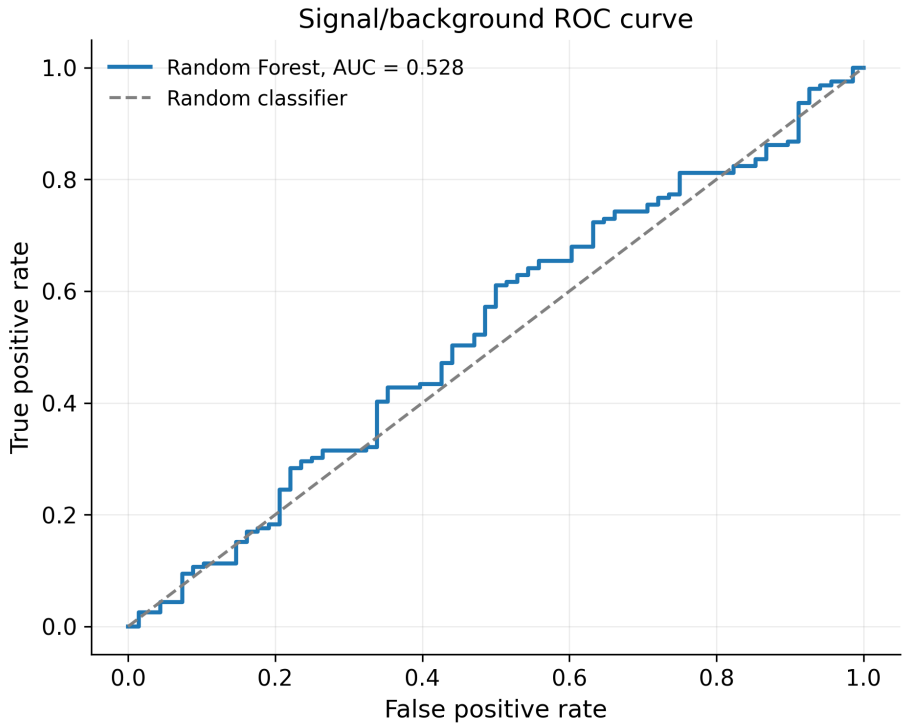


Figure 4: ROC curve for the sideband-labelled Random Forest signal/background classifier.

The measured area under the curve is AUC = 0.528. This is compatible with no separation at all, and it should be read as a negative result rather than as a performance figure. Two reasons explain it, and both are properties of the analysis rather than of the algorithm. First, the baseline selection of Sec. 5 is already tight enough that the surviving sample is dominated by signal; the classifier is asked to separate a background population that has largely been removed. Second, the features available in the ntuple are the same variables the selection already cuts on, so little independent information is left. Training before the tight preselection, on a looser sample and with additional kinematic variables, is the way to make this study informative; it is listed as a planned extension.

Figure 5 shows the feature-importance ranking from the Random Forest model. Given the AUC above, this ranking describes which variables the model used, not which variables carry physical discrimination. Such rankings depend on feature correlations, sample composition, and the chosen model architecture, and should not be read as physics observables.

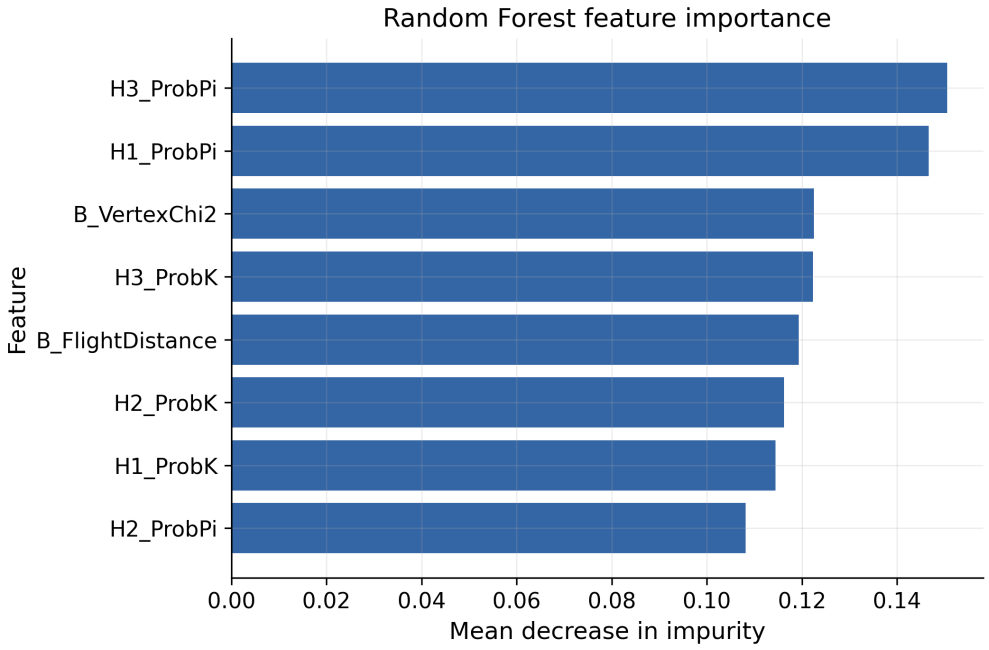


Figure 5: Random Forest feature importance for the signal/background classification task.

This part of the project demonstrates the integration of standard HEP sideband logic with modern machine-learning tools, and it also demonstrates when such a tool has nothing to add. The classifier is not used anywhere in the mass-fit, asymmetry or Dalitz results that follow; those rely on the transparent baseline selection alone. Making the classification study useful would require training before the preselection, cross-validation, gradient-boosted decision trees, systematic studies of the sideband definition, and comparisons with simulation.

7 Raw Charge Asymmetry

The selected candidates are separated into charge-conjugate samples using the total charge of the three daughter tracks,

$$Q_{\text{tot}} = Q(H_1) + Q(H_2) + Q(H_3). \tag{18}$$

Candidates with $Q_{\text{tot}} = +1$ are classified as B^+ candidates and those with $Q_{\text{tot}} = -1$ as B^- candidates. The selected samples contain 884 B^+ and 761 B^- candidates in MagnetDown, and 658 and 636 in MagnetUp.

7.1 Simultaneous charge fits

The asymmetry is extracted from fitted yields rather than from counts in a fixed window, which would mix the background into the yield. For each magnet polarity, the B^+ and B^- spectra over $5200 < m(hhh) < 5600$ MeV/c^2 are fitted *simultaneously* with the nominal model of Sec. 4.3: the peak position, the resolution and the background slope are shared between the two charges, and each charge has its own signal and background yields. The signal yields are parameterised by their sum N and the raw asymmetry

$$A_{\text{raw}} = \frac{N(B^-) - N(B^+)}{N(B^-) + N(B^+)}, \tag{19}$$

which is therefore a parameter of the fit, with an uncertainty that includes its correlation with N.

Sharing the shapes is a physics statement: neither the mass resolution nor the shape of a combinatorial background has a reason to differ between the two charges. It also matters in

practice. When the two MagnetDown spectra are fitted separately, the B^+ background takes a slope of -9.5 ± 1.4 per GeV/c^2 against -6.0 ± 2.1 for B^-, and 83 background candidates against 31; a fluctuation of the B^+ spectrum (Sec. 7.3) is then absorbed by its background, which moves its signal yield and makes the asymmetry depend on where the fit range starts. With shared shapes the background can only change its yield, not its shape, to follow it.

All four fits converge to a valid minimum with a positive-definite covariance matrix (Figs. 6 and 7). They give

$$\text{MagnetDown:} \quad N(B^+) = 686 \pm 28, \quad N(B^-) = 641 \pm 26, \quad A_{\text{raw}} = -0.0337 \pm 0.0286, \tag{20}$$

$$\text{MagnetUp:} \quad N(B^+) = 548 \pm 24, \quad N(B^-) = 515 \pm 24, \quad A_{\text{raw}} = -0.0305 \pm 0.0315, \tag{21}$$

with a common peak position of 5284.7 ± 0.6 and 5284.8 ± 0.6 MeV/c^2 and a resolution of 19.4 ± 0.5 MeV/c^2 in both polarities.

Goodness of fit is judged with the likelihood-ratio χ^2 of Baker and Cousins [13], which uses every bin including the empty ones. With many bins holding only a few candidates, its asymptotic χ^2 distribution does not hold, so the p-value is taken from the pseudo-experiments of the toy study below, each refitted: $p = 0.025 \pm 0.003$ for MagnetDown and $p = 0.30 \pm 0.01$ for MagnetUp. The MagnetDown description is marginal, for the reason given in Sec. 7.3.

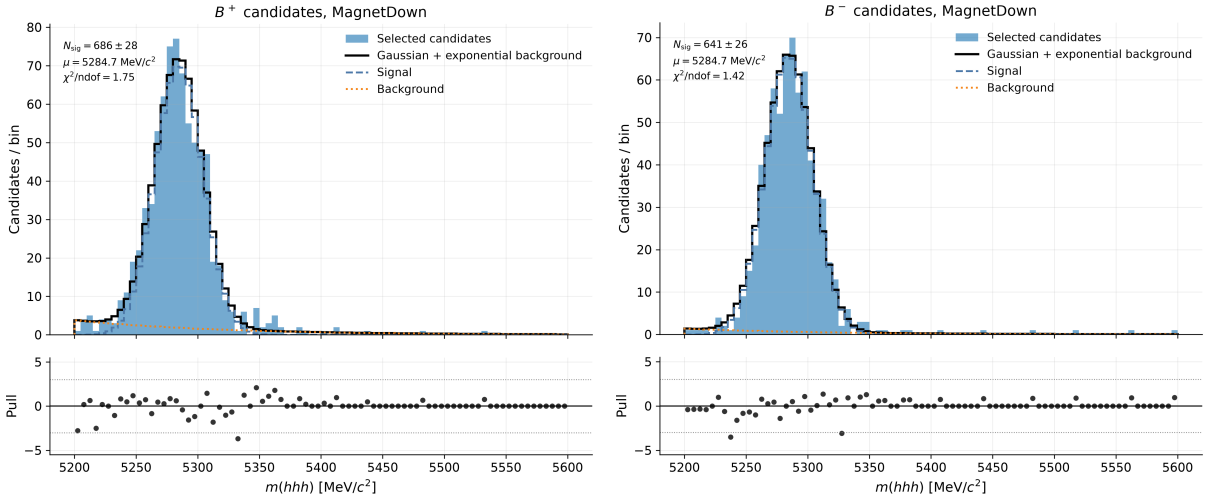


Figure 6: Simultaneous fit of the MagnetDown B^+ (left) and B^- (right) spectra, with shared shape parameters.

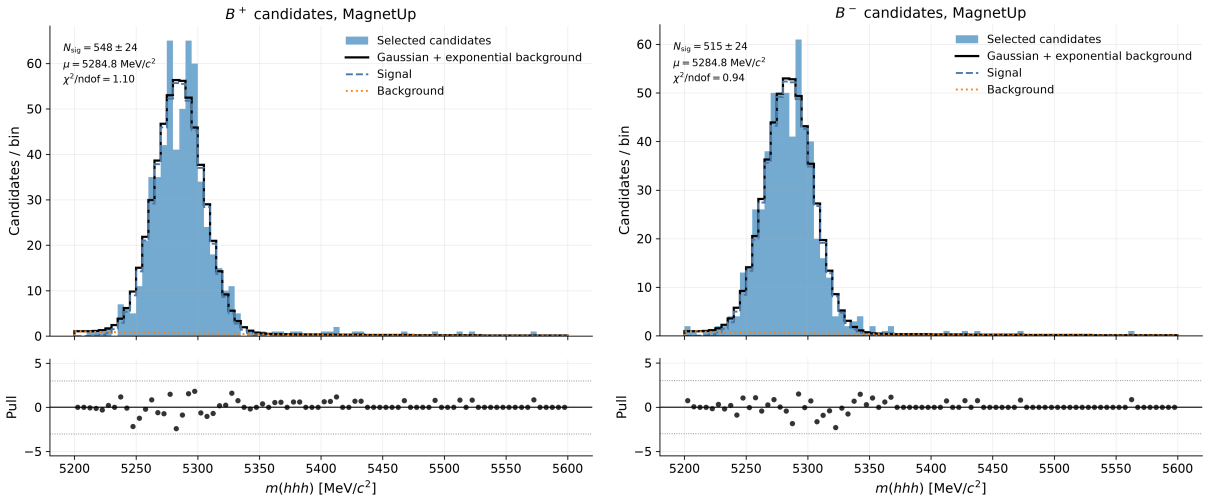


Figure 7: Simultaneous fit of the MagnetUp B^+ (left) and B^- (right) spectra.

7.2 Combination of the magnet polarities

Reversing the magnet swaps the side of the detector towards which each charge is bent. A left–right detection asymmetry therefore enters the two polarities with opposite signs, and the *equal-weight* average

$$A_{\text{raw}} = \tfrac{1}{2}\left(A_{\text{raw}}^{\text{Down}} + A_{\text{raw}}^{\text{Up}}\right), \qquad \sigma = \tfrac{1}{2}\sqrt{\sigma_{\text{Down}}^2 + \sigma_{\text{Up}}^2}, \tag{22}$$

cancels it to first order. A precision-weighted average would not, because the two samples differ in size. The two polarities agree well, and the average is

$$A_{\text{raw}} = -0.0321 \pm 0.0213 \text{ (stat.)}. \tag{23}$$

After including the systematic variations described below, the result is

$$A_{\text{raw}} = -0.0321 \pm 0.0213 \text{ (stat.)} \pm 0.0163 \text{ (syst.)}, \tag{24}$$

compatible with zero at the level of 1.2 standard deviations of the total uncertainty.

This is a raw asymmetry, not a physical CP-asymmetry measurement. The polarity average removes the polarity-odd part of the detection asymmetry, but not the kaon detection asymmetry that survives it, the B^+/B^- production asymmetry, trigger and reconstruction effects, or selection-induced charge biases. A complete measurement would require detector calibration, background control, efficiency corrections, a control channel to cancel production and detection asymmetries, and a more complete systematic programme. The value in Eq. 24 should therefore be interpreted as a diagnostic of the analysis workflow rather than as evidence for CP violation.

For orientation only, the published LHCb measurement of the inclusive CP asymmetry in $B^\pm \to K^\pm K^+ K^-$, using the full 2011 dataset with all corrections applied, is $A_{CP} = -0.043 \pm 0.009 \text{ (stat.)} \pm 0.003 \text{ (syst.)} \pm 0.007$ ($J/\psi K^\pm$) [14]. The raw value obtained here is of the same sign and magnitude, with a total uncertainty a little over twice as large. That numerical proximity is encouraging but must not be read as a validation: none of the corrections that turn a raw asymmetry into a CP asymmetry have been applied, and the uncorrected detector and production effects are not known to be small compared with the quoted uncertainty.

7.3 The low-mass shoulder of the MagnetDown B^+ spectrum

The MagnetDown B^+ spectrum shows an excess on the low-mass flank of the peak (Fig. 8): 105 candidates between 5220 and 5260 MeV/c^2, where the shared-shape fit expects 91, against 56 for 73 expected in B^-. Only 5 of the 61 B^+ candidates between 5200 and 5250 MeV/c^2 have a K^+K^- pair compatible with a $\bar{D}^0$, and the excess lies above the endpoint of the partially reconstructed structure of Sec. 4.3.

Whether the two charges share a shape is tested with the likelihood ratio of the simultaneous fit against separate fits, which have three more parameters (peak position, resolution and background slope for each charge). The statistic is calibrated with 1000 pseudo-experiments generated from the shared-shape fit and refitted both ways. On MagnetDown it gives $p = 0.043 \pm 0.006$. That overstates the evidence, since the flank was singled out after looking at this spectrum. The independent MagnetUp sample settles the question: it shows no excess (53 candidates for 62 expected in B^+, 66 for 58 in B^-) and gives $p = 0.25 \pm 0.01$. A genuine physics effect would appear in MagnetUp B^+ as well, and a polarity-dependent detector effect would move to MagnetUp B^-; neither is seen at a significant level. The shoulder is treated as a fluctuation of about two standard deviations. It is the reason the MagnetDown fit is marginal, and, through the separate fits, it was the origin of the fit-range dependence of the earlier version of this analysis.

One weaker pattern is recorded without being claimed. In separate fits the B^+ and B^- peak positions differ by -2.5 ± 1.2 MeV/c^2 in MagnetDown and by $+1.8 \pm 1.3$ MeV/c^2 in MagnetUp. A sign flip with the polarity is what an uncalibrated charge-dependent momentum scale would produce, but each value is only about two standard deviations from zero; a momentum-scale calibration would be the first thing to check in a real measurement.

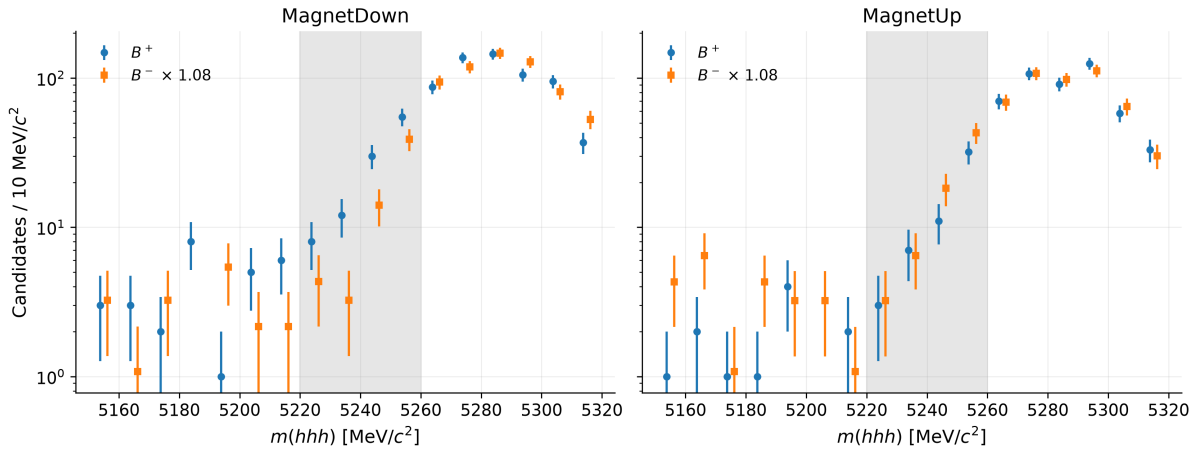


Figure 8: B^+ and B^- spectra on the low-mass flank of the peak, per polarity, with B^- scaled to the B^+ peak. The shaded band is the 5220–5260 MeV/c^2 window.

7.4 Toy-MC validation

The statistical machinery is validated with 2000 pseudo-experiments. In each, the B^+ and B^- spectra of both polarities are generated from that polarity's fitted model, refitted simultaneously, and averaged over the polarities exactly as the data are. No fit fails. The raw-asymmetry pull has mean -0.03 and width 0.98; the bias of the average is -0.0005, 2.6% of its statistical uncertainty. The mean fitted uncertainty, 0.0212, slightly exceeds the observed spread of the fitted asymmetries, 0.0207, so the quoted uncertainty is calibrated and, if anything, conservative. This validates the statistical extraction under a correct model; it is not a detector-level systematic study, and it cannot detect a bias caused by the model itself being wrong.

7.5 Systematic uncertainties

Two analysis choices are varied: the mass-fit model and the invariant-mass fit range. Every configuration is evaluated exactly as the nominal: both polarities are fitted simultaneously in charge and averaged. A configuration is accepted only if every fit converges to a valid minimum, the fitted yields and their uncertainties are positive, and the χ^2/ndof of each charge spectrum remains below 2.5. These criteria were fixed before the variations were run. Because the double-Gaussian model has a nearly degenerate direction, each fit is started from several points and the lowest valid minimum is kept.

The fit-model and fit-range variations are not assumed to be independent. Every model is refitted on every range (Fig. 9), and the systematic uncertainty is the largest shift from the nominal over all accepted configurations. All 20 configurations pass the acceptance criteria. The largest shift, 0.0163, comes from the double Gaussian with a linear background on 5200–5700 MeV/c^2. The range shifts inside the envelope are not Barlow-corrected, so it is mildly conservative.

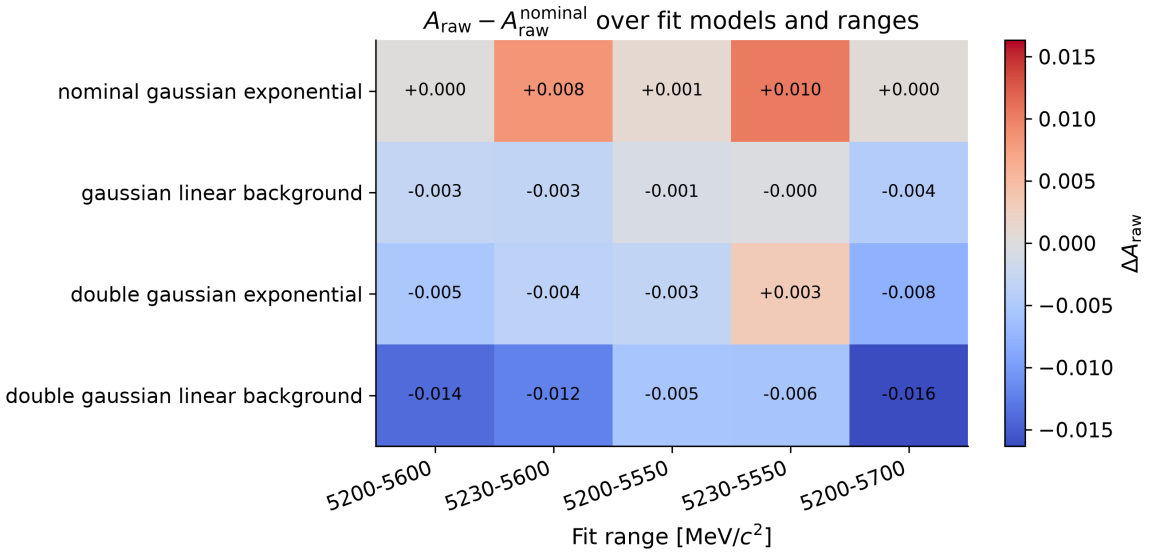


Figure 9: Shift of the polarity-averaged raw asymmetry from the nominal for every combination of fit model and fit range. All 20 configurations pass the acceptance criteria.

The one-at-a-time variations are kept as diagnostics. The fit-model study compares the nominal with a single Gaussian plus finite-range linear background and with two double-Gaussian alternatives; the largest shift is 0.014 (Fig. 10). The fit-range study repeats the nominal fit on narrower and wider intervals (Fig. 11). A change of range adds or removes candidates, so the two results differ even with no systematic effect; the expected size of that difference is $\sigma_{\mathrm{B}} = \sqrt{|\sigma^2_{\mathrm{var}} - \sigma^2_{\mathrm{nom}}|}$ (Barlow [15]), and only the part of a shift Δ beyond it, $\sqrt{\max(\Delta^2 - \sigma^2_{\mathrm{B}}, 0)}$, is evidence of a systematic effect. With shared shapes every range shift is within $1.5\,\sigma_{\mathrm{B}}$; the largest Barlow-corrected shift is 0.0075. In the earlier version of this analysis, with separate charge fits on MagnetDown alone, raising the lower edge to 5230 MeV/c^2 moved the asymmetry by $2.1\,\sigma_{\mathrm{B}}$; that sensitivity came from the B^+ background shape following the shoulder, and it is gone.

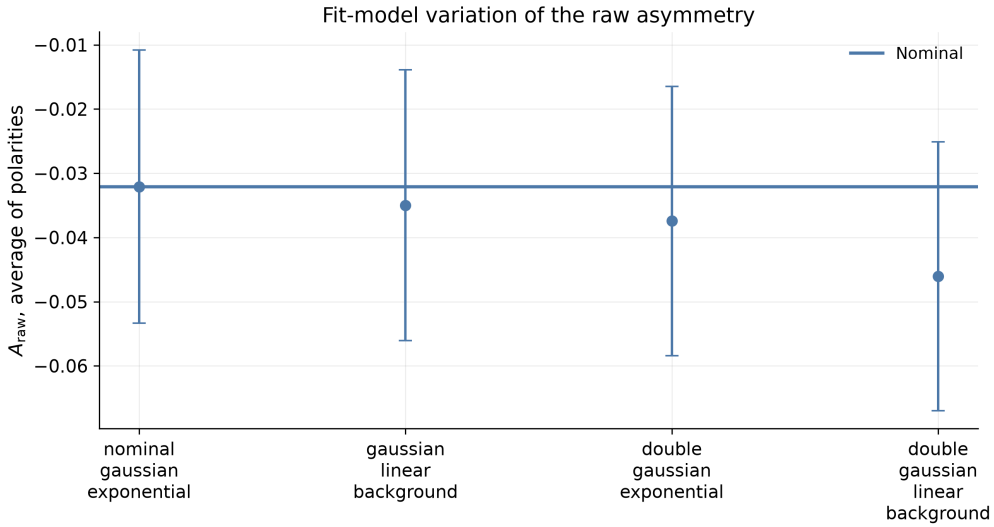


Figure 10: Polarity-averaged raw asymmetry for the different mass-fit models on the nominal fit range.

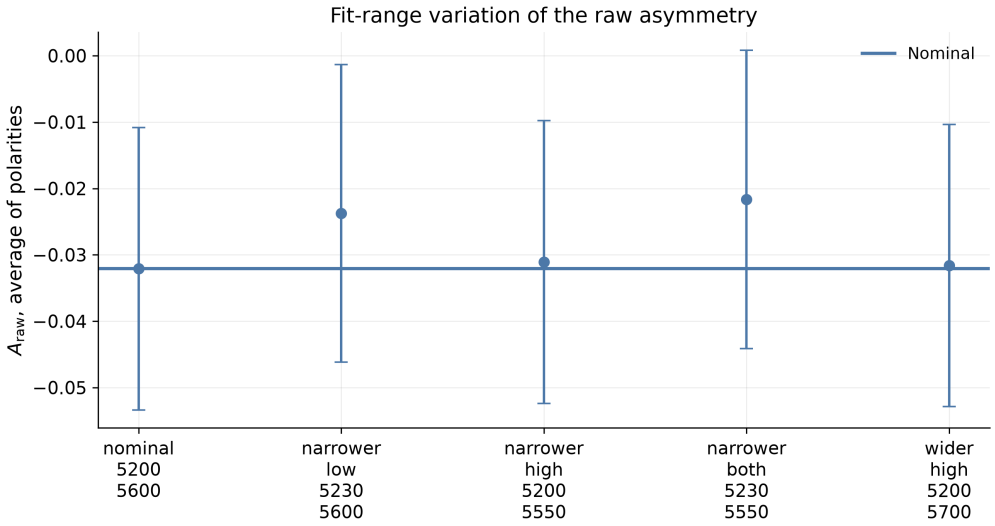


Figure 11: Polarity-averaged raw asymmetry for alternative invariant-mass fit ranges using the nominal model.

The envelope is dominated by MagnetDown. Across the 20 configurations its asymmetry ranges from -0.015 to -0.068, while MagnetUp stays between -0.023 and -0.032: the model dependence comes from how each model treats the MagnetDown B^+ shoulder. The nominal also sits towards one edge of the grid, with 14 of the 19 other configurations giving a more negative asymmetry.

Table 2: Uncertainty components for the polarity-averaged raw asymmetry. The one-at-a-time diagnostics are not combined; the quoted systematic is the joint envelope.

Source	Uncertainty on A_{raw}
Statistical	0.0213
Fit model alone (diagnostic)	0.0139
Fit range alone, Barlow-corrected (diagnostic)	0.0075
Systematic, joint model × range envelope	0.0163
Total	0.0268

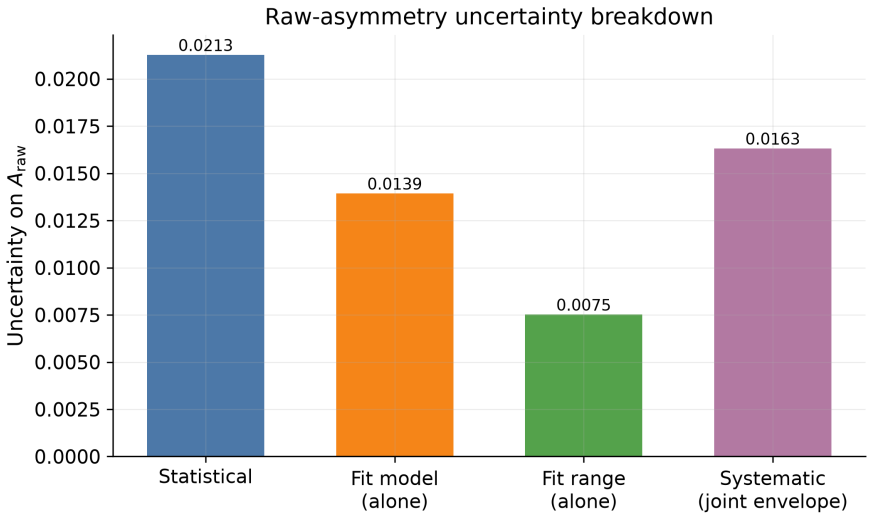


Figure 12: Statistical uncertainty, the two one-at-a-time diagnostics, and the joint systematic envelope on the raw asymmetry.

The statistical uncertainty now dominates. These studies probe only a limited set of analysis choices: signal-shape variations constrained by simulation, a momentum-scale calibration, a control channel and detector-efficiency corrections would all be required before interpreting the raw asymmetry as a corrected CP observable.

8 Dalitz Plot Analysis

8.1 Charge-ordered Dalitz variables

Three-body decays contain more kinematic information than a single reconstructed parent mass. The internal phase-space structure is studied with pairwise invariant masses,

$$m_{ij}^2 = (E_i + E_j)^2 - |\vec{p}_i + \vec{p}_j|^2 \,, \tag{25}$$

with each daughter assigned the kaon mass hypothesis and the squared masses reported in GeV^2/c^4.

The three tracks of a candidate carry labels H_1, H_2, H_3 in the ntuple, but these labels have no physical meaning: they are not ordered by charge. A $B^+ \to K^+K^+K^-$ candidate has two opposite-sign pairs, K^+K^-, and one same-sign pair, K^+K^+. Pair masses built directly from the labels, such as $m^2(H_1H_2)$, therefore mix same-sign and opposite-sign pairs from one candidate to the next, and do not define a fixed region of phase space. They are not usable for a comparison of B^+ and B^-.

The opposite-sign pairs are instead identified from the daughter charges, as the two pairs that contain the track whose charge is opposite to the total. Because the two same-sign kaons are identical particles, the plane is folded by ordering the two opposite-sign masses,

$$m^2_{\mathrm{low}}(K^+K^-) \leq m^2_{\mathrm{high}}(K^+K^-). \tag{26}$$

These coordinates do not depend on the track labelling, and they are the ones that map onto each other under CP: the K^-K^+ pairs of the conjugate B^- decay. A B^+ and a B^- candidate in the same bin then sit in the same region of phase space, which is what a bin-by-bin asymmetry requires. Both properties are covered by unit tests.

8.2 Dalitz distribution

A Dalitz plot displays the density of selected events in the plane of two pair-mass-squared variables. Resonant two-body substructures appear as bands, while interference and phase-space effects produce non-uniform densities. In a complete amplitude analysis these structures would be modelled with coherent sums of resonant and non-resonant amplitudes; the present analysis restricts itself to visualising the distribution.

Figure 13 shows all selected candidates, without a mass window; the local asymmetry study of Sec. 8.3 restricts itself to the signal region. The narrow $\phi(1020) \to K^+K^-$ band at $m^2_{\mathrm{low}} \approx 1.04\ \mathrm{GeV}^2/c^4$ is clearly visible, which is a check that the opposite-sign pairs are correctly identified: on MagnetDown, 167 candidates lie within 12 MeV/c^2 of the ϕ mass in $m_{\mathrm{low}}(K^+K^-)$, against 101 in the label-based $m(K_1K_2)$, where the band is diluted across pairs that are sometimes same-sign (notebook `05`).

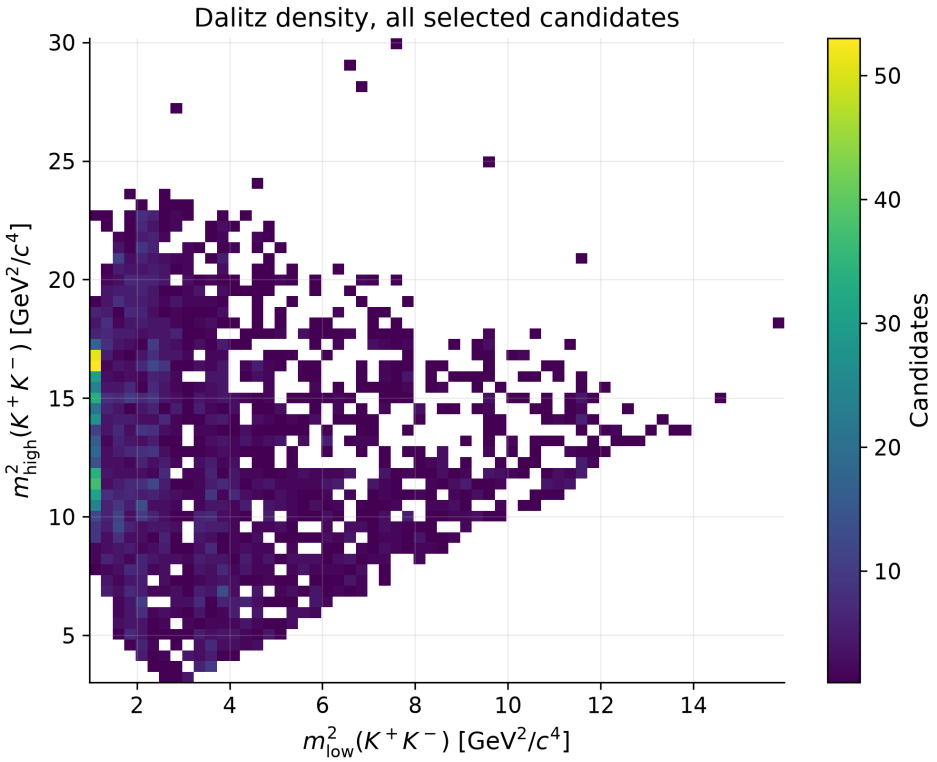


Figure 13: Dalitz density of all selected candidates in the charge-ordered $m^2_{\text{low}}(K^+K^-)$ versus $m^2_{\text{high}}(K^+K^-)$ plane.

Dalitz plots are especially relevant for CP-violation studies in multibody decays. Even if the integrated raw asymmetry is small, local asymmetries in restricted phase-space regions can be larger. This motivates a first bin-by-bin diagnostic of charge-dependent structures across the Dalitz plane.

8.3 Local raw-asymmetry diagnostic

The local diagnostic uses the candidates of the signal region, $5245 < m(hhh) < 5325$ MeV/c^2, which is the fitted peak position of Sec. 4.3 widened by twice the fitted resolution. Restricting to that window keeps the diagnostic on the same candidates the mass fits describe; using every selected candidate instead would mix in the sidebands and the low-mass structure excluded from the fits. Both magnet polarities are pooled; the samples are of similar size, so this counting diagnostic is close to the equal-weight polarity average used for the fitted asymmetry. The window contains 2358 candidates, 1220 of positive and 1138 of negative charge. Candidates are split into B^+ and B^- samples using the total reconstructed daughter charge,

$$q_{\text{tot}} = q_1 + q_2 + q_3. \tag{27}$$

The $m^2_{\text{low}}(K^+K^-)$ versus $m^2_{\text{high}}(K^+K^-)$ plane is then divided into regular two-dimensional bins. In each bin (i, j), the raw asymmetry is computed directly from candidate counts,

$$A^{ij}_{\text{raw}} = \frac{N^{ij}_- - N^{ij}_+}{N^{ij}_- + N^{ij}_+}, \tag{28}$$

where N^{ij}_+ and N^{ij}_- are the numbers of B^+ and B^- candidates in that Dalitz bin. The statistical uncertainty is estimated from binomial counting propagation, and a local significance is formed as $A^{ij}_{\text{raw}}/\sigma(A^{ij}_{\text{raw}})$.

The default study uses a 10×10 binning and masks bins with fewer than 20 candidates in the asymmetry and significance maps. The bin contents are still stored in the numerical output, but low-statistics regions are not interpreted visually. With this threshold, 39 out of 100 bins pass the requirement; about half of the grid lies outside the folded kinematic region and is empty by construction. The direct counting asymmetry over the whole window is

$$A_{\mathrm{raw}} = -0.0348 \pm 0.0206, \tag{29}$$

consistent with the fit-based value of Eq. 19, as it should be: the window is the core of the fitted peak, and the counting differs from the fit mainly in not subtracting the background. The counting value does not correct for detector efficiency, phase-space acceptance, bin migration, production asymmetry, or detector-induced charge asymmetries.

The largest local significance over the 39 populated bins is 2.6. Treating the bins as independent and each significance as a unit Gaussian under the no-asymmetry hypothesis, the probability that at least one of 39 bins fluctuates that far is

$$p_{\mathrm{global}} = 1 - (1 - p_{\mathrm{local}})^{39} = 0.27, \tag{30}$$

so this diagnostic shows no evidence of local structure — the expected outcome at this sample size. The published LHCb study of local asymmetries in this channel uses a far larger dataset and a finer binning of the Dalitz plane [14].

Figure 14 shows the selected-candidate population used to define the local bins. The occupancy is highly non-uniform, reflecting both phase-space structure and the effect of the selection. This count map is essential context for interpreting the local asymmetry and significance maps.

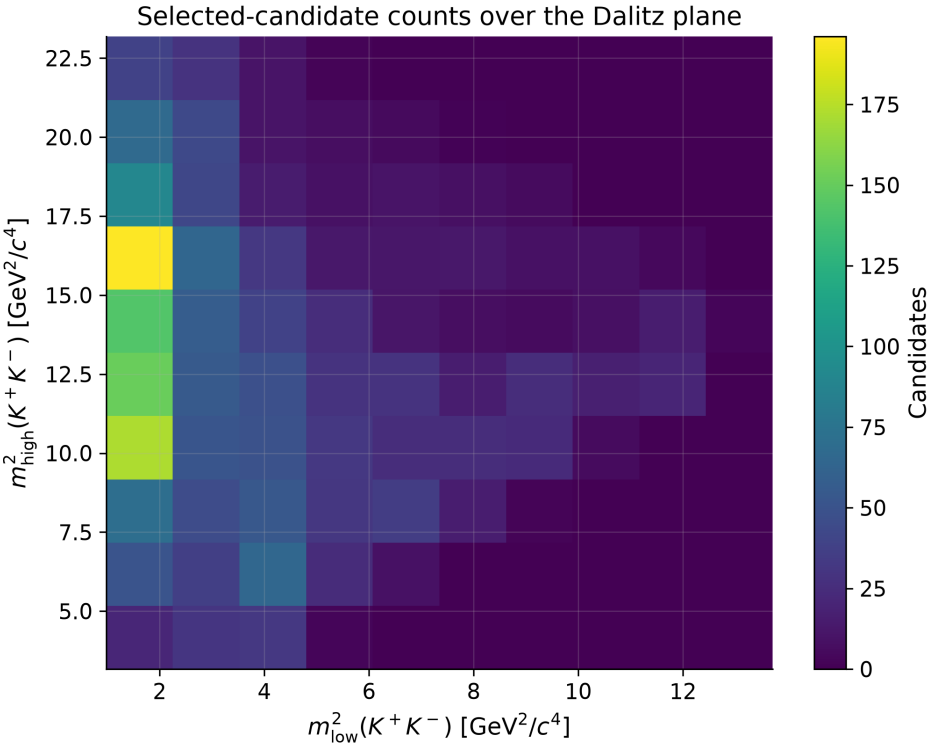


Figure 14: Selected-candidate counts in the charge-ordered $m^2_{\mathrm{low}}(K^+K^-)$ versus $m^2_{\mathrm{high}}(K^+K^-)$ Dalitz plane.

Figure 15 shows the local raw-asymmetry map after the minimum-count masking. The map is useful for visualising possible charge-dependent structures, but no physics claim is made from this diagnostic alone.

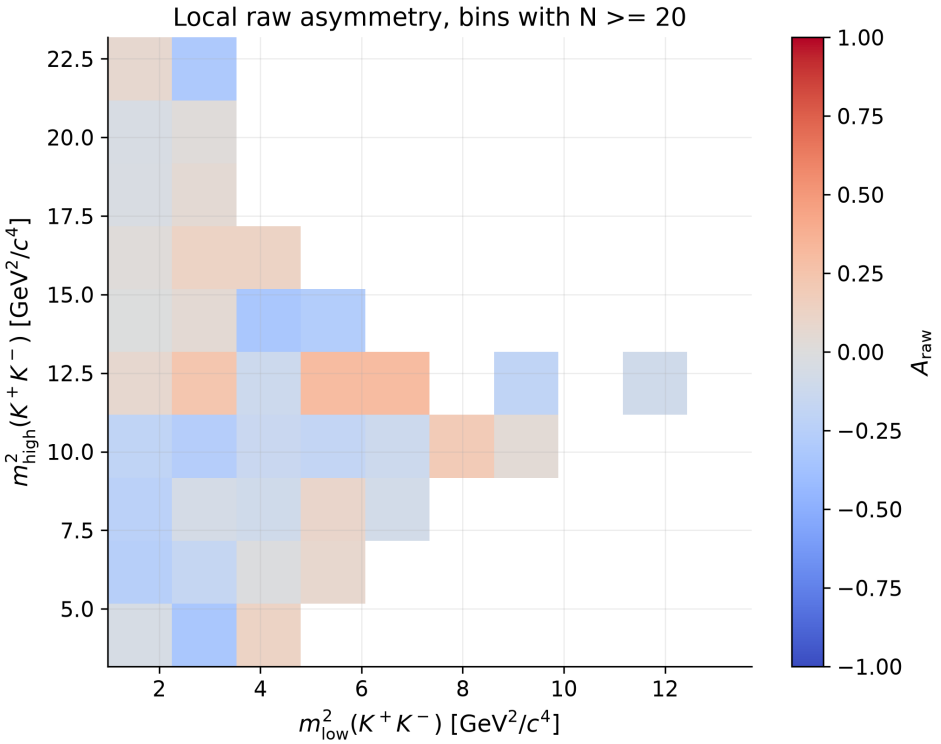


Figure 15: Local raw-asymmetry map in the charge-ordered $m^2_{\mathrm{low}}(K^+K^-)$ versus $m^2_{\mathrm{high}}(K^+K^-)$ Dalitz plane. Bins with fewer than 20 selected candidates are masked.

Figure 16 shows the corresponding local counting significance. The largest local deviations must be interpreted with caution because many bins are inspected and no look-elsewhere correction, background subtraction, or efficiency correction is applied.

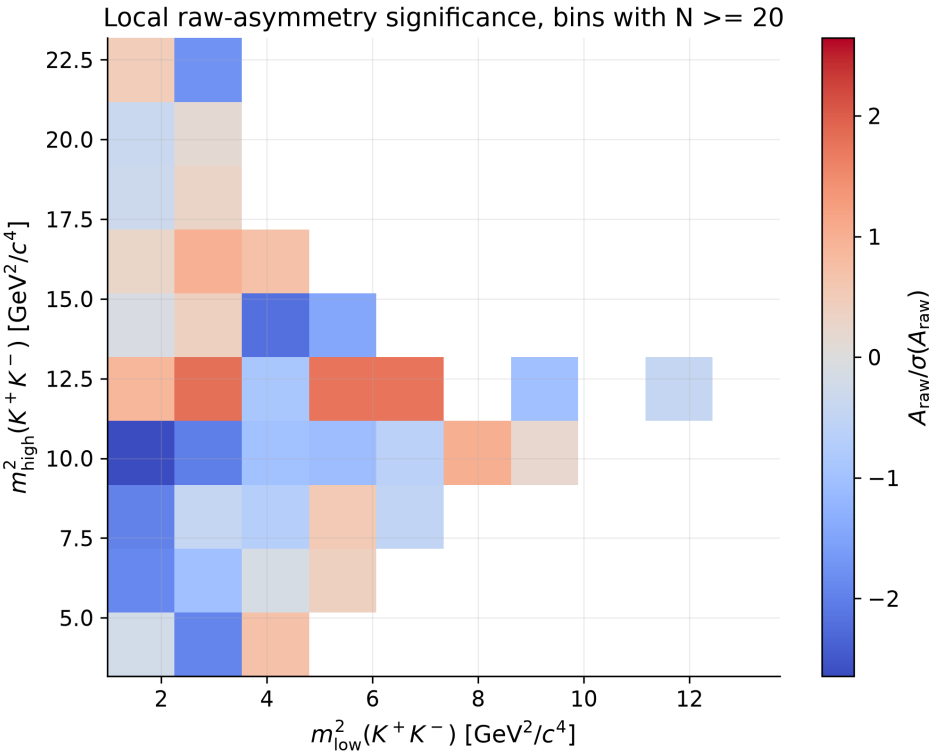


Figure 16: Local raw-asymmetry significance in the charge-ordered $m^2_{\text{low}}(K^+K^-)$ versus $m^2_{\text{high}}(K^+K^-)$ Dalitz plane. Bins with fewer than 20 selected candidates are masked.

A proper local CP-asymmetry study would require signal-yield extraction or background subtraction in each Dalitz region, efficiency and acceptance corrections, treatment of migration between bins, and detector- and production-asymmetry corrections. The maps shown here should therefore be read as a conservative exploratory diagnostic rather than as evidence for a physical CP asymmetry.

9 Summary and Conclusion

This project implements a complete introductory HEP analysis chain on LHCb CERN Open Data. Starting from ROOT ntuples, the analysis reads selected branches with `uproot`, processes candidates with `pandas` and `numpy`, reconstructs invariant masses, applies physics-motivated selections, fits the mass spectrum by binned maximum likelihood, fits the charge-conjugate samples of both magnet polarities simultaneously, validates the statistical procedure with pseudo-experiments, evaluates a joint model and fit-range systematic, tests the charge dependence of the mass shape, and examines the three-body phase space with Dalitz-plot distributions and a local asymmetry diagnostic.

Table 3 collects the quantitative results.

Table 3: Summary of the results obtained in this report. All asymmetries are raw and uncorrected.

Quantity	MagnetDown	MagnetUp
Candidates in the input sample	5 135 823	3 420 295
Candidates after baseline selection	1645	1294
Candidates inside the fitted mass range	1445	1128
$N(B^+)$	686 ± 28	548 ± 24
$N(B^-)$	641 ± 26	515 ± 24
A_{raw}	-0.0337 ± 0.0286	-0.0305 ± 0.0315
Toy p-value of the simultaneous fit	0.025	0.30
Toy p-value, B^+/B^- shape compatibility	0.043	0.25
Both polarities		
Fitted signal / background yield	2394 ± 52 / 180 ± 21	
Fitted peak position / resolution	5284.7 ± 0.4 / 19.5 ± 0.4 MeV/c^2	
A_{raw}, polarity average	$-0.0321 \pm 0.0213\,(\text{stat.}) \pm 0.0163\,(\text{syst.})$	
Toy-MC pull width / bias	0.98 / -0.0005	
Counting asymmetry in the signal window	-0.0348 ± 0.0206	
Largest local Dalitz significance (39 bins)	2.6 (global $p = 0.27$)	
Classifier AUC (sideband labels, MagnetDown)	0.528	

The invariant-mass reconstruction shows a clear B-candidate peak after the baseline selection, at a position consistent with the known $B^\pm$ mass [11]. The simultaneous charge fits give a raw asymmetry compatible with zero within the quoted uncertainties, consistent between the two magnet polarities, and the pseudo-experiments show that the statistical procedure and its uncertainty are correctly calibrated. Two results of this report are negative ones, and they are stated as such: the sideband Random Forest does not separate signal from background on this sample, and the double-Gaussian signal shape cannot be constrained by it.

A third finding concerns the method. An excess on the low-mass flank of the MagnetDown B^+ peak, a fluctuation of about two standard deviations that the independent MagnetUp sample does not reproduce, was absorbed by the B^+ background when the two charges were fitted separately. That made the asymmetry depend on the fit range and the fit model, and it dominated the uncertainty budget. Fitting the charges simultaneously with shared shapes, and averaging the two polarities, removes that sensitivity: the systematic falls below the statistical uncertainty.

The analysis remains intentionally simplified and does not constitute a precision flavour-physics measurement. Several improvements would be required for a full experimental analysis:

- use a control channel to remove the production asymmetry and the kaon detection asymmetry that the polarity average does not cancel;
- calibrate the momentum scale separately for each charge and polarity, for which the opposite peak-position shifts of the two polarities give a hint;
- model the partially reconstructed contributions below 5200 MeV/c^2 explicitly, with a shape constrained by simulation, since the ntuple boundary at 5050 MeV/c^2 leaves too little of it to constrain from data;
- include detector effects, PID calibration, trigger efficiencies, and reconstruction asymmetries, validated on simulation and control samples;
- implement signal-shape alternatives such as a Crystal Ball function, on a sample large enough to constrain them;

- train the classifier before the tight preselection, with cross-validation and overtraining checks, if it is to be useful at all;
- perform the local Dalitz asymmetry study with per-bin background subtraction and efficiency corrections.

Despite these limitations, the project reproduces the structure of a real experimental analysis: transparent event reconstruction, documented selection choices, modular code, reproducible figures, signal extraction by likelihood fit, uncertainty propagation, validation on pseudo-data, explicit and pre-registered acceptance criteria for systematic variations, and a clear separation between what has been measured and what would still be needed to claim a physics result.

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